CHAPTER – 4

TEXTUAL TRADITION OF ĀSTIKA DARŚANAS WITH SPECIAL REFERENCE TO THE PRAMĀṆAS

4.0 Introduction - Basic texts of Āstika Darsana

Though in the modern sense the word Āstika means theist and Nāstika means atheist, in Sanskrit philosophical literature these words do not have the above meanings. Āstika is one who believes in the authority of the vedas, and he need not believe in the existence of God. In this sense both the Jaina and Buddha philosophies are Āstika, because they believe in the teachings on life after death. So in India the shad darśanas or the six orthodox schools are Āstika and the Cārvāka school is Nāstika.

The most outstanding text of Nyāya darśana is the Nyāya sūtra of sage Gautama. It has five books called adyāyas, each containing two sections or āhnikas. Other texts on Nyāyadarśana include Vatsyayana's Nyāyabhāṣya, Udyotakara's Nyāya - Varttika, Vācaspatis Nyāya – Varttika– tatparya – tikā, udayana's Nyāya – Varttika – tātparya – Pariśuddhi and Kusumāñjali, Jayanta Bhaṭṭa's Nyāya – Mañjari also explains the ideas contained in the Nyāya sūtra. The group of scholars who developed the Nyāya philosophy through attack and defence are

known as Nyaiyayikas. The modern school of Nyāya puts emphasis on the logical aspects of Nyāya and its theory of knowledge called the pramāṇas.

The Nyāya philosophy contains four parts such as its theory of knowledge, the theory of the physical world, the theory regarding the individual self and liberation, and finally the theory of God. The entire Nyāya philosophy is a detailed explanation of the sixteen padārthas or topics among which pramāṇa is the first one. The padārthas are 1) pramāṇa, 2) Prameya, 3) Samśaya, 4) prayojana, 5) dṛsṭanta, 6) Siddhānta, 7) avayava, 8) tarka, 9) nirṇaya, 10) vāda, 11) jalpa, 12) vitandā ,13) hetvābhāsa, 14) chala ,15) jati and 16) nigrahasthāna.

Pramāṇa is the means of knowledge. It provides us the source of true knowledge. Prameya is an object of true knowledge or reality. The examples are the self (ātma), the body (sarīra), the senses etc. According to Nyāya philosophy there are four pramanās. Pratyakṣa, Anumāna, upamāna and Śabda. Knowledge or cognition occurs due to the manifestation of objects. Knowledge is of two kinds – anubhava and smṛti. Anubhava means preventative cognition and smṛti is representative cognition. Both can be either yathartha (valid) or ayathartha (non-valid). Valid anubhava is called Pramāṇa. Non-valid anubhava is called a prama. There are three kinds of aprama such as samśaya (doubt) error (bhrama) and hypothetical argument (tarka).[1] The Nyāya, Vaiśeṣika, Jaina and the

Buddhist philosophies explain how to distinguish between true and false knowledge. While true knowledge leads to successful practical activity false knowledge ends in failure and disappointment.

Pratyakśa or perception is defined by Nyāya darśana as definite cognition produced by sense object contact. It is true and faultless.[2] Anumāna or inference is cognition which occurs due to some other knowledge. It is a process of reasoning in which some mark (liṅga) of something else makes cognition due to its concomitance (vyāpti) between the two.[3] The five stages of Anumāna (inference) and nigamana.

The Naiyayikas classify inference into three different groups.

1) Under the first group there are two kinds of inferences – svārtha and parārtha.[4]

Svartha Anumāna is inference for oneself while parārtha Anumāna is inference meant for others.

2) Under the second group there are three kinds of inference – a) pūrvavat, b) śeṣavat and c) Sāmānya to dṛṣta.

a) Puravat anumāna is cognition based on previous experience.

eg:- Seeing the dark clouds coming rain is inferred.

b) Sesavat anumāna is cognition from seeing the effect.

eg:- seeing the muddy water past rain is inferred.

c) Sāmānyatodṛṣta Anumāna is inference by analogy.

eg: Seeing an animal with horns, the inference is that it will have hoofs also.

3) Under the third group there are three kinds of inference –

Kevalānvayi, Kevalavyatireki and anvayavyatireki inferences.[5]

When the middle term is only positively related to the major term the inference is called kevalānvayi, in Kevalavyatireki inference the middle term is only negatively related to the main term; and in anvayavyatireki inference its middle term is both positively and negatively related the main term.

The third source of valid knowledge recognized by Nyāya is Uapamana. The knowledge acquired by a person based on the description given by some body else. For example, if a forester tells a villages that a wolf is an animal like a big dog, the villages recognized the wolf when he sea's it based on the descriptions given by the forester. The Vaiśeṣika and the Sāṅkhya do not recognize Upamana as an independent pramāṇa. They consider it as parts of inference.

Śabda is the fourth pramāṇa accepted by Nyāya darśana. It is defined as valid verbal testimony. It is based on the statement of a trust worthy person.[6]

Inference is the activity or process of the mind by which the mind makes a reasoning so as to arrive at a conclusion. The traditional example given to explain Anumāna is the following.

"Where there is smoke, there is fire. There is smoke on the mountain, therefore, there is fire on the mountain.[7]

But Śabda Āgama or It is the process of the mind by which something is made known by means of the information conveyed by a saved text or a trust worthy person, who must have acquired it by pratyakṣa or Anumāna.

The systematic philosophy of control of the mind and body is found in the dogmas of Sāṅkhya darśana. Many ascetics had practised methods of Yoga like āsanas and prāṇayama to reach a trance like state even before the Yoga sūtra.

The basic text of Yoga system is the Yoga sūtra of Patañjali. There is a valuable commentary of Vyāsa called Yoga - bhāṣa. Other commentaries are Vacaspati's Tattva – Vaisarad and Bhoja's Vṛtti. Vijñāna

bhikṣu's Yoga vartika and Yoga sāra samgraha are also useful to the study of Yoga philosophy.

Patañjali's Yoga sūtra has five parts. The first part called samādhipāda deals with the nature, aim and forms of Yoga. The second, the sādhanapada discusses KriyaYoga as a means of attaining samādhi. The third, vibhūtipada explains the inward aspects of Yoga and the powers acquired by its practice. The fourth part called kaivalkyapada describes the nature and forms of liberation or Mokṣa.

Yoga is the practical side of Sāṅkhya philosophy. It accepts the three pramāṇas such as perception inference and testimony of the vedas in the Upaniṣads we have references to the practice of Yoga .[8] The Yoga scheme of self – realization has a strong foundation in the Sāṅkhya philosophy. The system believes in the transcendental nature of human soul, and admits that there are deeper levels of consciousness, and higher states of existence than the physical and the sensuous. The deeper reality of human existence has been accepted by not only the sages and saints of the east, but also philosophers of the west like Plato, Aristotle, Spinoza, Leibniz, Kant and Hegal.

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Error (Viparyaya) is a false knowledge which does not correspond to the nature of the object. The traditional example of error is a rope taken for a snake.

Sankara, in his Brahmasūtra bhāṣya, defines adhyāsa which also fundamentally corresponds to error:

atasmims tadbuddhir iti

ie., "the buddhi or comprehension of 'that' in what is not 'that'.

Padmapāda, in his Pañcapādika (p. 23) defines adhyāsa.

" [illegible] | - which means: "the manifestation of the form of 'that' in the form of what is not 'that'.

शब्दज्ञानानुपाती वस्तुशून्यो विकल्पः |

(*Yoga sūtra. 1.9.)

Vikalpa follows knowledge of words (Śabdajñānānupātin), and lacks a material correlate. (Vastusūnya)

The term 'vikalpa' refers to the activities of the mind resulting in meaningless expressions and judgements, negative, concepts, fantasies and abstract concepts. The vikalpa has been translated differently by different scholars. MaxMuller in The Six Systems of Indian Philosophy (p. 337) translated it as "fancy". Vivekananda translated it as "verbal

delusion", and Dasgupta, as imagination (A History of Indian Philosophy, Vol. 1, pp. 261, 269).

Patañjali shows the two characteristics of this mental process – it is Śabdajñānānupatin (it follows a knowledge of words) and it is Vastusūnya (lacks a material correlate).

Vikalpa can be explained thus:

The activity of vikalpa is produced in the mind. It emerges entirely out of verbal knowledge. It is based on words, and it depends on words. It is not necessary to have an object as in the case of pratyakṣa. Only words are enough to produce an image in the mind. It has no material correlate. In other words, there is actually nothing exists corresponding in reality. Examples are centaur, Yail of Rahu etc. 'Centaur' is an imaginary creature, and (Rahu is a monster which has only a head and no tail). The hares horns, Barren woman's son etc.

4.1 Nyāya Darśana

Nyāya darśana and Vaiśeṣika darśana share many theoretical perspectives including the existence of God. However Vaiśeṣika holds different points of view in certain matter like the pramāṇa states of the vedic statements. It was the work of Annam Bhaṭṭa that correlated the two darśanas. Thus Tarkasamgraha of Annam Bhaṭṭa (A.D. 1650) treats the

two systems together. The word Vaiśeṣika is derived from Viśeṣa which means 'difference.' The doctrine is called Vaiśeṣika because it holds that diversity and not unity is the root of the universe. The word Nyāya are intellectualistic and analytic. The most outstanding works of Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika are the Vaiśeṣika sūtra of Kanada and the Nyāya sūtra of Gautama. The earliest comment any of the former is the Bhaṣya of Prasasthapāda, and that of the latter is the Bhaṣya of Vatsyāyana (AD 400). The Vaiśeṣika sūtra has other commentaries like Udayanacarya's (AD 984) Kiranavali and Sridharacarya's Kandali. Udayotakara's Vartika is a Bhaṣya of the Nyāya sūtra, and its commentary by Vacaspati miśra (AD 841) is called Tatparya Tīka. Udayana wrote its Bhaṣya called Tatparya Tīka Parisuddhi. Jayanta Baṭṭa's Nyāya – manjari is a store house of information on the Nyāya darśana. Gangeśa's (AD 1200) Tattva - cintamāṇi in considered a great work because it makes the subject simple for the common students.

Prof. Hiriyanna points out that the Vaiśeṣika views the world from the ontological stand point while the Nyāya does so from the epistemological."[9] Vaiśeṣika describes seven padarthas, while the Nyāya recognizes sixteen padarthas. All the seven of the Vaiśeṣika and included in them. Prameya (the knowable) is the second among them. The first padartha is pramāṇa.

In the Upaniṣads there are scattered references to systems such as Sāṅkhya and Yoga . The earliest text on Sāṅkhya is Sāṅkhya – Karika (about 5th C AD). The author in behaved to be Īswara Krishna. The well known scholar Vacaspati Miśra wrote a commentary on it in the 9th c. However, he basic text of Sāṅkhya is accepted to be the Sāṅkhya sūtra of Kapila Muni, but it is probably a later work written in the 14th century. Vijñana Bhiksu's famous commentary has explained it with modifications to bring it closer to the Vedānta philosophy.

In the case of the Yoga system Patañjali's Yoga – sūtra is the basic text (5th C. AD). The word Yoga originated from skt. yuj which means to unite. It is the activity of redirecting the mind which goes in different directions and to unite it in the path of the ultimate reality.

युज्यते पुरुषो मोक्षाय योग्यो भवति येन स योगः |

(By which man becomes eligible for mokṣa, that is Yoga) Patañjali uses the word Yoga in the sense of Samādhi.

"Yoga : samādhi" (Vyāsa Bhaṣya 1.1)

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Saṅkaracarya defines samādhi as

समधीयते चित्तम् अस्मिन्निति समाधिः |

Bhagavat Gīta defines Yoga as

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into for namely, nirvikalpaka (indeterminate) and savikalpa (determiante) perceptions. (Vide Nyāya – bhasya and Tatparya Tika. 1.1.4, Tarkabhasya, p.5., Nyāyalīlavati, p. 53).

In Inference we get the knowledge about something through some mark of the universal relation of the inferred matter. (Vide Muktavali, p. 66-67).

There are five propositions that may lead to an inference, namely pratijña, hetu, udāharaṇa, upameya and nigamana.[13]

Nigamana is the conclusion of the inference and vyāpti is the relation, which is the logical ground of inference.[14]

The Naiyyayikas give three different classifications of inference, which are (Tarka sangraha, pp. 46-49) different from the three generally accepted classifications of inference such as (Nyāya – sūtra and Bhasya. 1.1.5) pūrvavat, śesavat and sāmānya to dṛṣta.

The other two classifications are

1) into svartha and parārtha

2) into kevalanvayi, kevalovyatireki and anvaya vyatireki.

(Tarka bhasya, p.2.

Tarka sangraha pp. 51-52

Tarka – dīpika, pp. 35-36

Bhaṣya paricceda muktavali, pp. 142-43.)

According to Naiyayikas there are five fallacies of inference which are savyabhicāra, viruddha, satpratipakṣa, asiddha and b ādhita.[15]

Upamana is the third pramāṇa accepted by Nyāya. It is the source of our knowledge of the relation between a word and its denotation.

Śabda is the fourth pramāṇa recognised by Nyāya darśana. It consists of the assertion of a trust worthy person or a valid verbal testimony.[16]

The Vaiśeṣika and the Sāṅkhya systems consider Upamāna as a kind of inference only. (Tarka sangraha, Dīpika, p. 63)

Tattva kaumudi, p.5.

The Jaina darśana reduces upamana to a kind of recognition called pratyabijña. (prameya kamala mārtanda, ch. III.)

The explanations offered by Mīmāmsa and Vedānta are different from those of the other darśanas.

(Śāstra dīpika, pp. 74-76.

Vedānta paribhaṣa, ch. III).

Śabda or verbal testimony is related to the meaning of sentences. A word is a group of letters arranged in a fixed order (Tarkasangraha, pp. 63-64). The meaning of a word is related to an object, which is ultimately due to the reason of the uniformity of the world (Ibid, p. 64). For a sentence to become intelligible four conditions are required, namely, akamṣa, yogyata, sannidhi and tatparyam. (Tarkasangraha, p. 72, Bhaṣa pariccheda Nyāya sutra discusses the objects of knowledge or prameya, [17] which are explained in the Bhasya. (1.1.9 – 22)[18]

The Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika have realistic views on the self and knowledge. The self is held as unique with cognition and feelings as attributes. It is indestructible and eternal, infinite and not limited by time and space.[19]

4.2 Vaiśeṣika darśana

The Vaiśeṣika sūtra of Kanāda Muni is divides into ten books or adyāyas, each having two sections. The most well known bhasya of the sūtra is Praśastapada's Padartha – dharma Sangraha. Other famous bhasyas of Vaiśeṣika sūtra are Vyomaśiva's Vyomavati, Udayana's Kiraṇavali and Sridhara's Nyāya – kandali. Vallabhācārya's Nyāya – lilāvata, and Udayana carya's Lakṣanāvali are commentaries on the Vaiśeṣika philosophy. Later works like Sivāditya's Sapta – padārthi, Langāksi Bhāskara's Tarka Kaumudi and Visvanatha's Bhāṣa pariccheda

with the commentary called Siddhānta Muktāvalii are important treatises on Vaiśeṣika darśana.

Vaiśeṣika recognizes only seven padārthas, while Nyāya accepts sixteen padārthas as constituents of the world. Of the seven padārthas, six are positive realities and the seventh one is abhāva which represents all negative facts.

Tarkamṛta Ch.I, Tarkabhāṣa, p. 29.

Vaiśeṣika – sūtra. 1.1.14.)

A quality or guṇa is defined as that which exists in a substance (Padartha) and his no quality or activity in itself.

(Vaiśeṣika sūtra. 1.1.16, Tarkabhāṣa, pp. 24-28)

Like the Nyāya, the Vaiśeṣika also is a realistic philosophy. It holds that the world is created out of the combination of atoms which are eternal in time and space. The Vaiśeṣika theory connects harmoniously the atomic theory with the spiritual and moral out look of man, and the belief in God as the controller of the world.

4.3 The Sāṅkhya Darśana

The philosophy called Sāṅkhya is built on the Sāṅkhya – sūtra of Kapila Muni. The extended form of the same work is called Sāṅkhya – Pravacana sūtra. Sage Kapila was an atheist who argued that the

existence of God could not be proved. The earliest commentary on Kapila's sūtras is Īsvarakṛṣṇa's Sāṅkhya – karika. Other famous explanations of the Sāṅkhya darśana are Gauḍapāda's Sāṅkhya – Karika-bhāṣyas, Sāṅkhya – Pravacanabhasya, Sāṅkhya – Sāra and Aniruddha's Sāṅkhya Pravacana – sūtra vṛtti.

The word Sāṅkhya means perfect knowledge, as it is the shortening of Samyog – jñāna. Like the Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika systems, the Sāṅkhya also concentrates on the objective of ending all pain and suffering from human lives. While Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika an believes in ultimate reality in atoms, minds and souls, Sāṅkhya recognizes two kinds of realities, viz., spirit and matter. (Puruṣa) and prakṛti (Sāṅkhya Karika).[20]

Samhya doctrines highlight the principle that all objects of the world, including our body and mind the senses and the intellect and dependent things are produced and limited by the combination of certain elements.[21]

Prakṛti is constituted by the three guṇas of Sattva, rajas and tamas. Guṇa is a constituent element or component, and not an attribute or quality.[22] According to the Sāṅkhya the self or Puruṣa is different from the body, the senses, the manas, and the intellect or buddhi. It is consciousness, which is the subject of all knowledge and it cannot be the

object of any knowledge. (Vedānta sāra 51-59, Karika and Kaumudi 17-20, Pravacana Bhaṣya and Vṛtti, 1.66, 1.138-64, 5. 61-68.)

Prama or valid knowledge is the reflection of the self in the intellect as modified into the form of the object, because without the self's consciousness, the unconscious intellect cannot cognise anything.

The Sāṅkhya is a philosophy of dualistic realism. The whole world is viewed as the interplay of consciousness and matter (puruṣa and prakṛti). The present of the puruṣa or self moves prakṛti to act. It is the reflection of the conscious self on the unconscious intellect that makes the cognitive and psychical functions possible.

4.4 Yoga Darśana

The Yoga – sūtra of Patañjali ṛṣi, which is also known as Patañjala sūtra is the basis of this darśana. She earliest bhasya of Yoga sūtra is by Vyasa and hence it is called Vyāsa bhāṣya. Other basic texts of Yoga darśana are Vacaspati Miśra Tattva Vaisaradi, Bhajaraja's Vṛtti and Vijñāna bhikṣu's Yoga vartika and Yoga – sara samgraha.

The Yoga and Sāṅkhya systems are closely related. In fact the Yoga is that practical application of the theories of Sāṅkhya. The Yoga accepts the three pramāṇas of perception inference and scriptural

testimony. Even the Upaniṣads, the smṛtis and the Purāṇās contain evidence of recognising the Yoga .

(Ref. Kaṭha Upaniṣads. 6. 11; 6. 18.

Svatasvatara Upaniṣads. 2. 8. 3. 11)

According to Yoga darśana, citta (mind) has many modified states, which are classified under five heads such as pramāṇa (true cognition), Viparyaya (false) cognition, Vikalpa (verbal cognition) nidra (sleep) and smṛti (memory). The true cognition is classified into three such as – perception, inference and verbal testimony.[23]

All cognitive mental states and activities (citta vṛtti) can be included under these five modifications of the mind. The self is reflected in the citta or the mind like in a mirror. The five Kleśas or sources of difficulties faced by citta are avidya (wrong knowledge), asmita (false & notion), rāga (desire) for pleasure), dveṣa (aversion to pain) and abhinivesa (fear of death).

In order to attain liberation we have to restrain the activities of the body, control the senses and the mind, and stop all modifications of citta. For that Yoga darśana prescribes the eight fold path of Yoga , which consists of 1) yama (restraint) 2) niyama (culture) 3) āsana (posture) 4) pranāyāma (breath control) 5) pratyahara (with drawal of the senses,

6) dhāraṇa (attention) 7) dhyana (meditation) and 8) samādhi (deliverance).

The basic text of the orthodox philosophical system of Yoga is attributed to sage Patañjali. There are other important treatises on the system of Yoga such as the Yoga - bhāṣa of Vyāsa and the Yattva Vaiṣāradi of Vacaspati Miśra. The HaṭaYoga was formulated by Yogi Gorakṣānātha who lived in the 13th century A.D. The basic texts of this school are Gorakṣa Sataka of the Yogi and HaṭaYoga pradīpika of Yogindra Svatmarama. Gheranda Samhita and Sivasamhita are two later texts dealing with Yoga .

Traditionally it is believed that Ṛśi Patañjali, who wrote teh grammatical commentary of Pāṇinīyam is the author of Yoga sūtra. However there are different views that the grammarian Patañjali and the Yogi Patañjali were two persons. However, it is agreed that Yoga Sūtra must have been written between 300 and 500 AD.

It is possible that Yoga had exited even before the days of Patañjali. Patañjali had only written a systematic treatise on it. Other writers had written on the Yoga before the Yoga sūtra, but we have not received those texts.[24]

The Yoga sūtra consists of four books titled 10 of Samadhi, 2) Of Sādhana, 3) Of the Sidhis and 4) Of Kaivalya. The total number of Sūtras is 195. They are short aphorisms dealing with the Sāṅkhya principles, which is the philosophical foundation of Yoga system.

The secret behind the state of Yogic trance is the absolute control of the physical and mental functions of the yogi. Ascetic discipline (tapas) freedom from desire (vairagya) and breath control (prāṇāyāma).

According the commentaries written on the Yoga sūtra try to explain the text on the basis of Sāṅkhya doctrines, because the sūtra can be understood only in the light of Sāṅkhya principles.

प्र□क्ष□□□□□□□□ | (Yoga sūtra. 1.7)

means the right knowledge can be acquired by the pramāṇas of perception (pratyakṣa), inference (Anumāna) and agama (Śabda or testimony). As stated by Vyāsa . Vasaspati Miśra, Bhoja and Vijñāna bhikṣu in their commentaries pratyakṣa is the perception through the senses of the corresponding objects. Dharmaraja, dhvarindra in his Vedāndaparibhāṣa balance that (p.15) the term pratyakṣa has a wider meaning. It includes not only the material objects, but also the mental realities and the experience of consciousness. Thus interpretation is apt because Patañjali considers mental processes, experiences, and

apprehensions etc. in the Book's of the Yoga sūtra under perception (Pratyakṣa). In sūtra 1.10, 1.17, 1.18, 1.19, 1.36, 1.38 etc. it is mentioned. Therefore is the activity, the action, the process of the mind by means of which one knows something lither directly, or by means of the senses.[25]

4.5 The Mīmāmsa Darśana

The doctrines of the Mīmāmsa should perfected by Jaimini in his sūtras were established before the time of the Bhagavat Gīta. Kumarila Bhaṭṭa's interpretation of the sūtra comes very close to the doctrines of the Gīta. It is possible that Kumarila may have been influenced by the Gīta.

Mīmāmsa means enquiry. It is the enquiry of what is dharma and what are the means to acquire it. While Pūrva Mīmāmsa enquires what is dharma, Uttara Mīmāmsa or Vedānta enquires what is Brahma. The Bhaṣya of Śabaraswami makes the sūtras of Jaimini comprehensible to all. The two parts of Śabara Bhaṣya are known as slokavartika and Tantra vartika respectively. Prabhakara Miśra has written a commentary to Śabara Bhaṣya called Bṛhati. Kumarila Bhaṭṭa expressed different views. The schools of these famous acaryas are known as Bhaṭṭa school and Prabhakara school. Both these acaryas tried to oppose the advancement of Buddhism which was one of the chief aims of all Mīmāmsakas.

Mīmāmsa accepts Pratyakṣa as an independent pramāṇa . Every knowledge is to be accepted as true until it is proved to be wrong by another knowledge. Vedānda darśana also joins this view, Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika darśanas consider all knowledge as not true until it is proved.

Nyāya philosophers accept smṛti and anubhava as real knowledge or prama, but Mīmāmsa does not accept memory as knowledge because, it is not new knowledge. It is only a repetition of a past knowledge and hence not a pramāṇa.

Mīmāmsa suggests five pramāṇa, Anumāna Śabda, upamāna and Arthapatti. With the help of a six organ called manas (mind) man is able to grasp knowledge.

Like Cārvākas Mīmāmsa also reject the alaukika Pratyakṣa as false pramāṇa. Sāmānya lakṣaṇa is also not acceptable to Mīmāmsa, because it is considered as a kind of Anumāna.

Sabaraswami defines Anumāna thus.

अनुमानं ज्ञातसंबन्धस्यैकदेशदशनत एकदेशान्तरे सन्निकृष्टे बुद्धिः।

(Sabara Bhaṣya) 1.1.5

The basic treatise behind the philosopher called Vedānta is the Brahma sūtras of Bādarāyaṇa or Vyāsa. In addition to Saṅkara's Advaita

Rāmānuja's Viśiṣṭadvaita, Madhvacaryas dvaita sidhanta etc. are all built on Brahma sūtra.

The entire Vedānta can be summarised by the śloka

ब्रह्म सत्यं जगन्मिथ्या जीवो ब्रह्मैव नापरः ||

(Brahmajñāna valim āla ślokam. 20)

Though Nyāya, Sāṅkhya and Yoga also give pramāṇa status to śruti, they always give prominence to pratyakṣa, and Anumāna. But Jaimini, Bādarāyaṇa and Sankara emphasize the importance of the vedas even neglecting Pratyakṣa and Anumāna. However, they negate the existence of a personal God.

Sri Sankara is an example to show how high a person's powers of reason and thought can develop. It is a marvel to see how much height his intellectual powers could rise with in such a short span of time. That he was an Indian is a matter of pride to all Indians. He could challenge and defeat the arguments of all other philosophers of his time. He could establish Vedānta on such a strong intellectual pedestal that not even the sharpest arguments of modern science could not shake it. Saṅkara could put forward for reaching explanation to the words of Upaniṣads and the vedas which even their creators did not foresee. He created even mutually contradictory scriptural statements. His theory of Vedānta remains

acceptable to both believers in God and non-believers. By combining truth, reality and appearance he proved that the world is phenomenal.

The Mīmāmsa School discusses elaborately the nature of knowledge and the means to acquire it. It admits two kinds of knowledge – immediate and mediate. Valid knowledge is that which conveys some new information which is not contradicted and not produced by defective sense organs.[26] immediate knowledge is called nirvikalpa Pratyakṣa and the knowledge received in the light of past experience is determinate, or Savikalpa Pratyakṣa.[27]

Similarly, knowledge arising out of comparison seeing a present object having similarity with an object seen in the past is upamana (comparison).[28]

In addition to vedic statements the testimony of a reliable person (āpta) is also accepted by Bhaṭṭa Mīmāmsa, as valid knowledge.[29] On the other hand the school of Prabhakara holds that non-vedic authority's statement gives knowledge through inference.[30]

Arthapatti is a kind of postulation in which an unperceived fact is taken for greater to explain a phenomenon.[31] (Sabara Bhaṣya 1.1.5).

Anupalabdi is non-perception is also considered as a source of cognition of the non-existence of an object.[32]

Mīmāmsa darśana draws two conclusions on knowledge – a) the validity of knowledge arises from the conditions that give rite to that knowledge.

प्र□□□[र□□□ □र□□ह्य□□]

b) The validity of a knowledge is also believed or known as soon as the knowledge arises. It does not wait for the verification by some other knowledge or inference.

प्रामाण्यं स्वतः ज्ञायते च |

The Mīmāmsa views of this double aspect of knowledge is called the theory of the intrinsic validity of knowledge, or

svataḥ - prāmānyam vada.

(śloka - vārtika, 2.1.1., and

sarva – darśana chapter on Jaimini system)

4.6 Vedānta Darśana

The Upaniṣads contain the completeness of the philosophy of the vedas. Vedānta means the end of the vedas. Bādarāyaṇa's Brahma – sūtra (also known as Vedānta – sūtra or sārīrika sūtra) undertook the task of systematizing harmoniously the philosophy of the Upaniṣads. In course of time ācāryas like Sankara, Rāmānuja, Mādhva, Vallabha, Nimbāraka

and others wrote Bhaṣyas or commentaries of the Brahma – sūtra and based on their teachings different schools of Vedānta darśana were established.

The Upaniṣads till us that there is an all pervasive reality under lying all things. This Reality is called Brahma, and also ātman (self), sat (being) etc.

Aitareya Upaniṣad says: "at first there was the Ātman alone. (1.1). The same idea is expressed in the Bṛhadāraṇyaka Upaniṣad. (1.4.1) Chāndogya Upaniṣad says: "All this is Ātman" (7.25.2). Ātman being known... every thing is known" (Bṛhadāraṇyaka 4.5.6). Chandogya Upaniṣad says again. There was only Being (Sat) at the beginning, it was one without a second." (Chandogya 6.2.1)

Mundaka Upaniṣad says:

"All this is Brahman" (2.2.11.) again Chandogya says it is Brahman that is present everywhere (3.14.1). Brahman and Ātma are used as synonyms in the Upaniṣads.

The Vedānta darśana of Saṅkara is called advaita because it considers Paramātma or Brahma and Jīvātma or individual soul as one. Following the message of Bhagavat Gīta, Sankara holds that work if performed with attachment becomes a hindrance to man's liberation or

mokṣa. One who attains perfect knowledge becomes free from attachment. Success or failure does not affect him. Only through selfless activity can one free oneself from the bondage of ego.[33]

The Vedānta of Saṅkara attempts to follow the Upaniṣadic idea of the unity of all existence. That is why William James said about Advaita Vedānta of Sankara, which was introduced by Swami Vivekananda, 'the paragon of all monistic system is the Vedānta philosophy of Hindustan."[34]

According to the Bhagavat Gīta prakṛti (non-self). Brahman is also called Puruṣa. The universe is conceived of as possessing an Ātma. The concept of Puruṣa is found in the Puruṣa sūtra of Ṛgveda. (RV. X. 90) The term also appears in the Upaniṣads. Puruṣa is primal and cosmic. It is one with Brahman and ātma. (Chandogya Upaniṣad. iii. 16.1). Puruṣa is immanent in every individual meaning.[35]

The doctrine of Puruṣa appears both in the Upaniṣads and the Bhagavat Gīta. In the Gīta, the only addition is that Puruṣa is Kṛṣṇa. In the Puruṣa sūtra of Ṛgveda (X. 90.2). Puruṣa is called Lord (isāna) of immortality. The Puruṣa concept of Sāṅkhya darśana appears as Īsvara in Patañjali's Yoga sūtra. In the Bhagavat Gīta Īsvara appears as Kṛṣṇa. The term Sāṅkhya first appears in the Svetasvatara Upaniṣad as related with Yoga.[36]

In the viewpoint of the Bhagavat Gīta work, knowledge and devotion (Karma, Jñāna and Bhati) are equally efficient from the bondage of life birth, death and rebirth. The doctrines of Mīmāmsa school regarding Karma or work had been established by the sūtras of Jaimini before the composition of the Bhagavat Gīta. Kumari Bhaṭṭa's interpretation of Jaimini's to sūtras are parallel to the teachings of Gīta, about work and knowledge. it is possible that Gīta had influenced Kumarila. On the other hand Prabhakara shows more affiliation towards the Sāṅkhya schools doctrines of pure knowledge.[37]

In the Bṛhadaraṇyakopaniṣad we find the prayer.

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□□□□□ □□□□□□ ||

This expressed the Indian conception of life and liberation. While the Christian ideal aims at the fullness of eternal life, the Hindu ideal hopes for deliverance from the cycle of repeated birth and death. This world is considered as transient, unreal, and changing and the liberated state is akṣara, sāsvata and avyaya. (Indestructible, everlasting and changeless.[38]

In the mortal life man is always troubled with endless desire, and hence no peace is achieved. The state of liberation is described as perfect

peace (parā śānti), and the calm of Brahma (Brahma nirvāṇa). The physical world is a place of illusions or delusion. Release or liberation is to reach Brahma. It is considered the goal of man.[39]

4.7 Resume

Nyāya sūtra of sage Gautama as well as its commentaries and explanations constitute the theoretical foundation of the ancient Darśana called Nyāya. Nyāya philosophy high lights the importance of the six major means to knowledge such as pratyakṣa, Anumāna, Upaāna and Śabda. Pratyakṣa or perception is defined by Nyāya as definite cognition produced due to the contact between sense and object. Anumāna or inference is cognition due to the help of some other knowledge. Naiyayikas divided Anumāna into three groups. Each group is further subdivided into two, three and three subsection based on their characteristics and the functions they perform.

The third Pramāṇa under Nyāya Darśanas Upamāna or comparison which is a convenient method for the comprehension of knowledge especially for a disciple who is a beginner. Both Vaiśeṣika and Sānkhya give it only inferior importance, and hence they do not give it the proper status of a Pramāṇa.

The fourth Pramāṇa of Nyāya Darśanas Śabda which is explained as valid verbal testimony like that of a trust worthy person. The theoretical basis of Vaiśeṣika Darśana is the Vaiśeṣika sūtra of sage Kanāda and that of Sānkhya sūtra of sage Kapila. In addition to these basic texts there are numerous Bhāṣya (commentaries) of the above treatises. Patañjali's Yoga sūtra is the basic document behind the system of Yoga. It is probable that Yoga had existed in India even before the days of Patañjali and the Yogi had only developed a systematic treatise of it.

The doctrines of the Mīmāmsa Darśanas were perfected by Ṛṣi Jaimini in his sūtras. Kumarila Bhaṭṭa and Prabhakara Miśra, two great Ācāryas have expressed different views on the Mīmāmsa Darśana in their commentaries, and established their own schools of philosophy.

The branch of Darśana called vedānta is built on the dogmass of Ṛṛṣi Bādarāyaṇas (Vyāsa) Brahma sūtra and Sri. Sankara's famous Bhāṣya of it. There are different branches of Vedānta called Advaita Vedānta of Ācārya Sankara and Viśiṣta advaita of Rāmānuja Ācārya. In the light of the writings of the above philosophers the famous Christian theologian K.P. Aleaz defines enlightenment or liberation differently. He says " " Liberation cannot be a product of anything it being realized through knowledge as a fact eternally present in its own right."[40] He also

points out that Advaita provides an “ideological basis for the self- sacrifice of Jesus and thus explains its meaning for us.” [41]

Notes and References

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4. Nyāya sūtra and Bhāsya. 1. 1. 5.

5. Tarka samgraha, pp. 51-52.

   Bhasapariccheda muktavali, pp. 142-43.

6. Tarkasangraha, p. 63.

7. Tattva kaumudi, p. 5.

8. Kaṭhopaniṣads. 6.11.6.18

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9. M. Hiriyanna, Outlines of Indian Philosophy, p. 245.

10. Nyāya sūtra and Bhaṣya. 11.1 – 1.2.23.

11. Ibid., 11.9 – 22.

12. Tarkasangraha, pp. 32-35, 82-84 Tarkabhasya, p. 29. Tatperya Ṭika. 1.1.1.

13. Tarkabhasya, pp. 48-49.

14. Tarka bhasya, pp. 7, Tarka sangraha, pp. 43.

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15. Tarkasangraha, pp. 54-60.

16. Nyayabhasya, 1.1.6, Nyā ya – manjari, pp. 141-142.

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18. Vāsyāyana, Nyāya sūtra. 1.1.9 – 22.

19. Nyāya bhā sya, 1.1.10 Padarthadarma sangraha, p. 30.

Taikabhasya, pp. 18-19.

20. Tattva kaumudi. 8.9.

Sāṅkhya pravacana bhasya. 1. 113-21.

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27. Śloka vartika, 1.1.4, Śabara Bhāṣya, 1.1.5.

28. Śāstra dīpika p. 138.

29. Prakaraṇa pancika – pariccheda, p. 87.

30. Ibid., p. 95.

31. Sabara Bhaṣya. 1.1.5.

32. Ślokavartika 2.1.1 Śāstra – dīpika and Vedānta paribhāṣa also contain information on Anupalabdi.

33. Saṅkara's Bhāṣya on the Bhagavat Gīta. 4.14, 3.20, 26.

34. William James. Pragmatism, p. 151.

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37. Douglas P. Hill, The Bhagavat Gīta, Introduction, p. 58.

38. Kena 13, Katha vi. 8, Svetasvatara. iii. 10

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